

MODULE 2

Java Syntax and Core Constructs

The building blocks of every Java program — variables, operators, control flow, methods, and clean, idiomatic code style.





WHY JAVA SYNTAX MATTERS

Correct syntax is the foundation of every Java program — syntax is to programming what grammar is to a language.

- Java Syntax: the set of rules that define how Java code is written and structured. Without correct syntax, the compiler cannot understand your code.

WHY JAVA SYNTAX IS IMPORTANT



Communication with the Compiler

- Lets the compiler understand your intent and convert it into bytecode.



Prevents Errors Early

- Syntax errors are caught at compile time, before runtime failures.



Ensures Readability

- Well-structured syntax is easy to read, understand, and maintain.



Improves Reliability

- Correct syntax leads to predictable, robust behavior.



Foundation for Advanced Concepts

- OOP, collections, exceptions, concurrency — all built on correct syntax.



Boosts Professional Development

- Strong syntax skills build speed, confidence, and problem-solving ability.

KEY TAKEAWAY Syntax is not just about rules — it's about writing code that computers can understand and humans can maintain.

COMMON SYNTAX MISTAKES

The five mistakes that trip up almost every new Java developer.

- Missing semicolons (;)
- Incorrect use of brackets: { } [] ()
- Wrong keyword usage
- Case sensitivity — Java is case-sensitive
- Incorrect variable or method declarations

EXAMPLE — MISSING SEMICOLON

```
int x = 5    // missing semicolon → compile error  
int x = 5;   // correct
```

KEY TAKEAWAY The compiler catches every one of these before your program ever runs — that's the whole point of syntax rules.

MODULE 2 LEARNING OBJECTIVES

By the end of this module, you will understand and apply Java syntax rules and core constructs to write effective programs.

- | | |
|---|---|
| 1 Understand the basic structure of a Java program. | 1 Organize code using packages and imports. |
| 2 Declare variables and identify data types. | 2 Perform basic input and output operations. |
| 3 Use operators and expressions. | 3 Write comments and follow code conventions. |
| 4 Control the flow of execution. | 4 Identify and avoid common syntax errors. |
| 5 Define and use methods. | 5 Combine core constructs to build simple programs. |

KEY TAKEAWAY Strong syntax knowledge is the foundation for writing correct, maintainable programs and for advancing to OOP and beyond.

BUSINESS SCENARIO: EMPLOYEE REGISTRATION APPLICATION

You are a Java developer at TechSolutions Inc., building a console app to register employees.

- Business Context: HR wants a program that adds new employees, stores their information, and displays a summary of all registered employees.



OBJECTIVES OF THE APPLICATION

- Capture employee details from the user; store employee information in memory.
- Assign a unique employee ID automatically; display all registered employees.
- Ensure proper input validation; use clean code with correct Java syntax.

KEY TAKEAWAY This scenario runs through the rest of the module — every construct you learn will build toward this application.

EMPLOYEE REGISTRATION — FEATURES & CONCEPTS APPLIED

The features you'll implement, and the Java concepts each one exercises.



Menu Driven

- Add Employee, View All Employees, Exit.



Add Employee

- Take input for all fields, store in a collection.



Auto ID Generation

- Generate a unique Employee ID for each record.



Input Validation

- Validate email format, salary (> 0), experience (≥ 0).

- Java concepts you will apply: Variables & Data Types · Operators & Expressions · Control Flow (if, switch, loop) · Methods · Arrays/Collections · Input/Output · Strings.

KEY TAKEAWAY Building this application lets you practice every core construct in a real-world scenario.

JAVA VARIABLES

The containers that store data in your Java programs.

- A variable is a named memory location used to store data that can be changed during program execution.

WHY USE VARIABLES?

- | | | | |
|--|---|---|---|
|  Store & Manage Data
Hold data in memory. |  Readable Code
Give meaning to values. |  Reuse & Update
Data can change over time. |  Build Logic
Essential for solving problems. |
|--|---|---|---|

TYPES OF VARIABLES

- | | |
|---|--|
|  Primitive Variables <ul style="list-style-type: none">• Store single values: int, double, char, boolean, float, long, short, byte. |  Reference Variables <ul style="list-style-type: none">• Store references to objects: String, Scanner, Employee, ... |
|---|--|

KEY TAKEAWAY Variables are the foundation of Java programming — declare, initialize, and use them correctly to write bug-free code.

Java Variables



A variable in Java is a **named memory location** used to store data of a specific type.

Types of Variables

1. Local Variable

- Declared inside a method, constructor or block.
- Scope is limited to that block.
- No default value.
- Stored in the **Stack**.

```
public void show() {  
    int age = 25;  
    System.out.println(age);  
}
```

Stack Memory

show()

age = 25

Created when the block/method is executed and destroyed when it exits.

2. Instance Variable

- Declared inside a class but outside any method.
- Belongs to an object.
- Has default values.
- Stored in the **Heap**.

```
class Student {  
    String name; // instance variable  
    int age;  
}
```

Heap Memory

student1

name = "John"
age = 20

student2

name = "Sara"
age = 22

Created when the object is created and destroyed when the object is garbage collected.

3. Static (Class) Variable

- Declared with the **static** keyword inside a class.
- Belongs to the class, not to any object.
- Only one copy is shared by all objects.
- Stored in the **Method Area**.

```
class Student {  
    static int count = 0; // static variable  
}
```

Method Area

Class: Student

count = 0

Created when the class is loaded by the JVM and exists until the program ends.

Variable Declaration

Syntax:

```
dataType variableName = value;
```

Examples:

```
int age = 25;  
double salary = 75000.50;  
char grade = 'A';  
boolean isJavaFun = true;  
String name = "Alice";
```

Key Points



Every variable must be declared with a data type.



Variable names are case-sensitive.



Local variables → Stack
Instance variables → Heap
Static variables → Method Area



Use meaningful variable names to write readable code.

VARIABLE DECLARATION & MEMORY

Syntax, plus where variables and their data actually live.

```
dataType variableName = value;  
  
int age = 25;  
String name = "Anita";
```

MEMORY (CONCEPTUAL)

- Stack: age=25, salary=55000.75, isActive=true, name→(ref)
- Heap: the actual String object "Anita"

RULES FOR NAMING VARIABLES

- Must start with a letter, underscore (_), or dollar sign (\$) — cannot start with a digit.
- Can contain letters, digits, _, or \$; case-sensitive (age and Age are different).
- Cannot use Java reserved keywords; use meaningful names (employeeName, totalSalary).

KEY TAKEAWAY Best practices: choose appropriate types, initialize before use, keep variables in the smallest necessary scope.

PRIMITIVE DATA TYPES

Built-in data types in Java that store single values — not objects.

KEY CHARACTERISTICS



Single Values

Not objects.



Fixed Size & Range

Predictable memory use.



Stack Memory

Fast allocation.



Better Performance

Less overhead than objects.

TYPE	SIZE	DEFAULT	RANGE	EXAMPLE
byte	1 byte	0	-128 to 127	byte b = 10;
int	4 bytes	0	-2 ³¹ to 2 ³¹ -1	int age = 25;
double	8 bytes	0.0	±4.9E-324 to ±1.8E+308	double salary = 55000.75;
char	2 bytes	'\u0000'	'\u0000' to '\uffff'	char grade = 'A';
boolean	1 bit	false	true / false	boolean isActive = true;

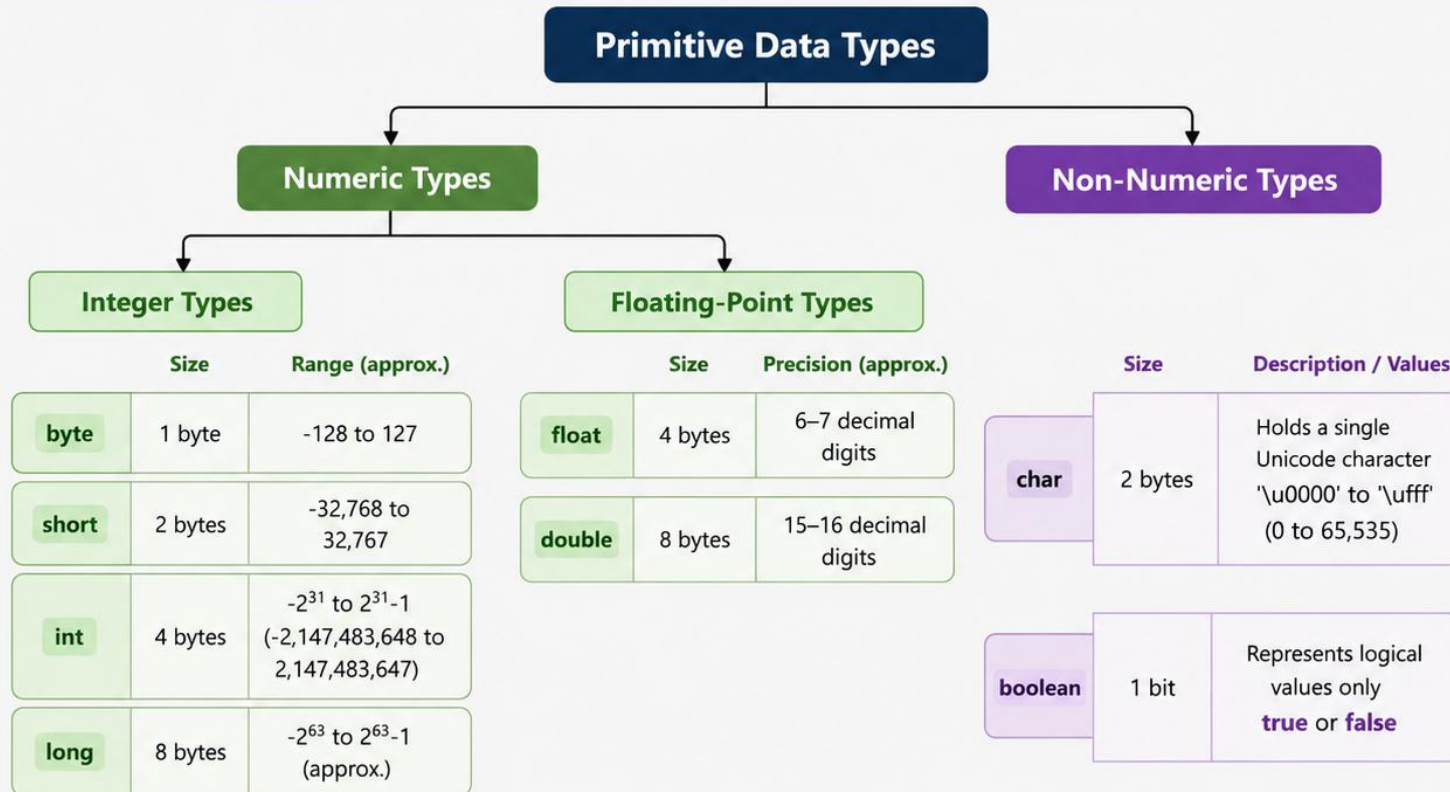
KEY TAKEAWAY Numbers: int is preferred unless you need a specific range; use double for decimal calculations needing higher precision.



Java Primitive Data Types



Primitive data types are the basic building blocks in Java. They hold **actual values** and are not objects.



Key Points

- Primitive types are stored in stack memory.
- They offer better performance and use less memory than objects.
- Primitive types have default values.

Default Values

- Numeric Types: 0 (or 0.0 for float/double)
- char: 'u0000' (null character)
- boolean: false

THE EIGHT PRIMITIVE TYPES

Every Java primitive, side by side.

byte	short	int	long	float	double
1 byte	2 bytes	4 bytes	8 bytes	4 bytes	8 bytes

char	boolean	DEFAULT (numeric)	DEFAULT (boolean/char)
2 bytes	1 bit	0 / 0.0	false / '\u0000'

- Primitive types store the actual value — they are faster and use less memory than objects.
- Their size is fixed and platform-independent.
- They are stored in stack memory and are not part of the class hierarchy.

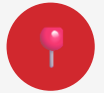
KEY TAKEAWAY Primitive data types are the building blocks of Java programs — know their size, range, and default values.

REFERENCE DATA TYPES

Store references (addresses) to objects in memory.

- Reference data types store memory addresses to objects. The actual data is in the heap; the reference variable is in the stack. All non-primitive types in Java are reference types.

KEY CHARACTERISTICS



Stores Addresses

- Points to objects in heap memory.



Default is null

- Can be assigned null.



Complex Data

- Supports complex data and behaviors.



GC Managed

- Dynamic memory management by the Garbage Collector.



Common Types

- String, arrays, classes, interfaces, Scanner, Employee, ...



Reassignable

- A reference can point to a different object later.

KEY TAKEAWAY Reference data types enable Java to handle complex data and support object-oriented programming.

Reference Data Types in Java

Reference types store a reference (address) to objects in the heap memory. Multiple references can point to the same object.

Types of Reference Data



Objects (Class Types)

Instances of user-defined classes



Arrays

Collection of elements of the same type



Strings

Sequence of characters (java.lang.String)



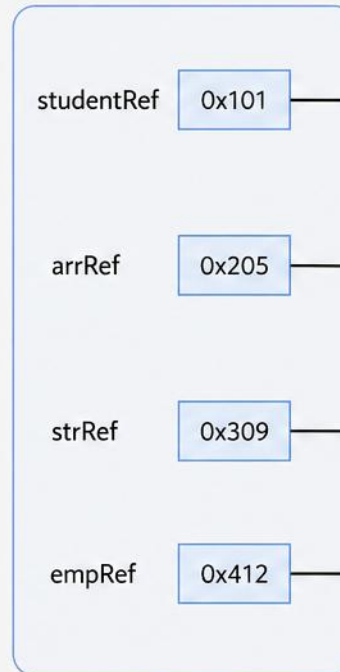
Interfaces

References to objects implementing an interface

Example

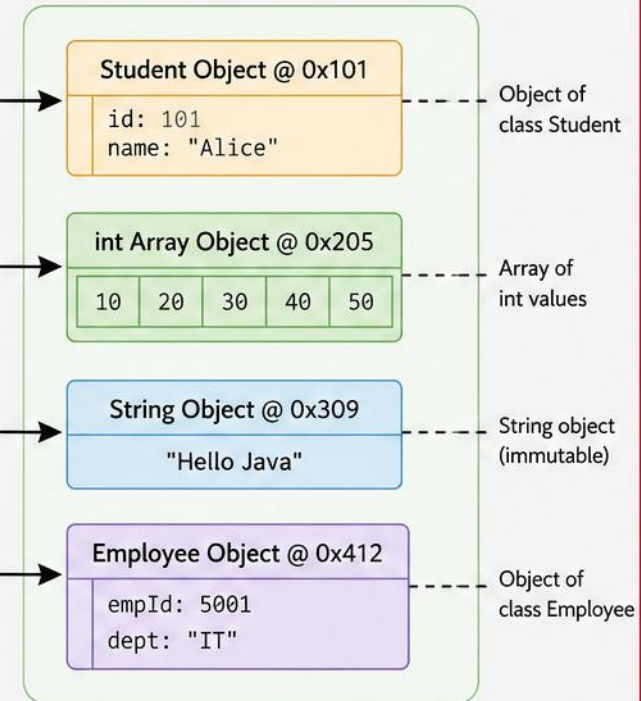
```
Student studentRef = new Student();
int[] arrRef = {10, 20, 30};
String strRef = "Hello Java";
Employee empRef = new Employee();
```

Stack (References)



Variables store references
(memory addresses)

Heap (Objects)



Actual objects are stored in heap memory



Key Point: Reference variables do not store the actual data. They store the memory address of objects in the heap.



REFERENCE TYPES — EXAMPLE & BEST PRACTICES

A reference doesn't hold the object — it holds the object's address.

```
String name = "Anita";    // name refers to a String object
Employee emp = new Employee(); // emp refers to an Employee object
emp = null;               // emp no longer points to any object
```

- Reference variables do not store the object itself, only the address; a reference can be reassigned.
- If a reference is set to null, it no longer points to any object; objects with no references become eligible for Garbage Collection.
- Best practices: always initialize references, check for null before use, prefer interfaces (List over ArrayList).

KEY TAKEAWAY Reference variables are addresses, not containers — understanding this prevents most null-pointer surprises.

TYPE CONVERSION AND CASTING

Converting a value from one data type to another — Java supports two kinds.



Widening (Implicit)

- Done automatically by the compiler; data is safe, no explicit casting required.



Narrowing (Explicit / Casting)

- Requires explicit casting; data may be lost in the conversion.

WIDENING CONVERSION EXAMPLE

```
int i = 100;  
double d = i;    // implicit widening, int → double
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Invalid conversions may cause compilation or runtime errors — widening is always safe, and narrowing requires an explicit cast and may lose data.

Type Conversion and Casting in Java

Converting one data type to another.



Widening (Implicit) Conversion

- Automatically done by the Java compiler.
- Converts a smaller type to a larger type.
- No data loss.

Widening Hierarchy



Example

```
int i = 100;  
long l = i;           // int to long (implicit)  
float f = l;          // long to float (implicit)  
double d = f;         // float to double (implicit)
```

Narrowing (Explicit) Conversion (Casting)

- Must be done explicitly by the programmer.
- Converts a larger type to a smaller type.
- Possible data loss.

Narrowing Hierarchy (Reverse Direction)



Example

```
double d = 123.456;  
int i = (int) d;      // double to int (explicit)  
long l = 1000L;  
short s = (short) l;  // long to short (explicit)
```

Widening vs Narrowing

Aspect	Widening (Implicit)	Narrowing (Explicit)
Conversion	Smaller → Larger type	Larger → Smaller type
How	Automatic	Manual (Casting)
Data Loss	No	Possible
Example	int → long	long → int

Casting Syntax

(TargetType) expression

Example:

```
double d = 9.78;  
int i = (int) d;  
// i is 9
```

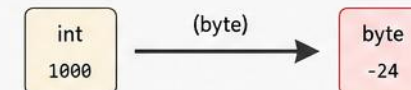
Important Notes

- Casting does not change the actual data, it only changes how it is interpreted.
- Be careful with narrowing conversions to avoid data loss.
- char can be converted to int implicitly, as char is treated as a 16-bit unsigned value.



Data Loss Example (Narrowing)

```
int x = 1000;  
byte b = (byte) x; // x is 1000, but byte can store -128 to 127  
// After conversion, b will be -24 (data loss)
```



NARROWING, CASTING SYNTAX & COMMON ERRORS

(dataType) value — the explicit cast that tells the compiler you accept the risk.

```
double d = 9.78;  
int n = (int) d;    // narrowing: n becomes 9, decimal part lost  
char c = 65;        // special case: char holds the Unicode value 'A'
```

- Cannot convert from double to int without casting — the compiler requires (int) explicitly.
- Narrowing risks: possible loss of precision, and out-of-range values.
- Common runtime error: `ArithmeticException`, e.g. divide by zero.

KEY TAKEAWAY Widening conversions are safe and automatic; narrowing conversions require explicit casting and may lose data.

ARITHMETIC OPERATORS

Perform basic mathematical operations on numeric operands.

OPERATOR	NAME	EXAMPLE	RESULT
+	Addition	5 + 3	8
-	Subtraction	5 - 3	2
*	Multiplication	5 * 3	15
/	Division	5 / 3 (int) / 5.0 / 3	1 / 1.666...
%	Modulus (remainder)	5 % 3	2

```
int result = 10 + 5 * 2;    // 20 – multiplication runs first (precedence)
int p = 7 / 2;              // 3 – integer division discards the decimal
double q = 7.0 / 2;        // 3.5 – floating point division
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Division by zero throws ArithmeticException — always be careful with overflow in int/long calculations.

JAVA ARITHMETIC OPERATORS

Arithmetic operators are used to perform mathematical operations on numeric values.

Operator	Name	Description	Example	Result
+	Addition	Adds two operands	int a = 10, b = 5; a + b	15
-	Subtraction	Subtracts second operand from first	int a = 10, b = 5; a - b	5
*	Multiplication	Multiplies two operands	int a = 10, b = 5; a * b	50
/	Division	Divides first operand by second	int a = 10, b = 5; a / b	2
%	Modulus	Returns remainder of first operand divided by second	int a = 10, b = 3; a % b	1

EXAMPLE PROGRAM

```
public class ArithmeticDemo {  
    public static void main(String[] args) {  
        int a = 10, b = 3;  
  
        System.out.println("a + b = " + (a + b));  
        System.out.println("a - b = " + (a - b));  
        System.out.println("a * b = " + (a * b));  
        System.out.println("a / b = " + (a / b));  
        System.out.println("a % b = " + (a % b));  
    }  
}
```

OUTPUT

```
a + b = 13  
a - b = 7  
a * b = 30  
a / b = 3  
a % b = 1
```

KEY POINTS



Work with numeric types: byte, short, int, long, float, double



Division (/) between integers performs integer division



Modulus (%) gives the remainder. Sign of result is same as dividend.



Division by zero causes Arithmetic Exception



Operator precedence applies: *, /, % before +, - (use parentheses)

PRECEDENCE ORDER (HIGH TO LOW)

*

—

/

→

%

→

+

→

-

Use parentheses () to change the order.

ARITHMETIC OPERATORS — INTEGER VS FLOATING POINT

The same / operator behaves differently depending on operand types.



Integer Division

- `int p = 7 / 2; → 3`
- The decimal part is discarded entirely.



Floating Point Division

- `double q = 7.0 / 2; → 3.5`
- At least one operand must be a float/double.

- Division by zero with integers throws `ArithmeticException`; with doubles it produces `Infinity` or `NaN`.
- Use `double` (or `float`) for decimal results; modulus (%) works with both integers and floating-point numbers.

KEY TAKEAWAY Arithmetic operators are the foundation of calculations — knowing how they behave across data types prevents subtle bugs.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 1: CALCULATIONS

Reinforces: the arithmetic operators and precedence you just saw.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	Calculator.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac Calculator.java	Calculator.class produced
3	Run	java Calculator	Prompts for two numbers
4	Key concept	Use double, not int	Keeps decimal places in the quotient
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-01-calculator.md	Full starter code and steps

```
double a = Double.parseDouble(scanner.nextLine()); // first operand
double b = Double.parseDouble(scanner.nextLine()); // second operand
System.out.printf("Quotient: %.2f\n", a / b);      // double division keeps the decimal
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 1 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-01-calculator.md.

RELATIONAL OPERATORS

Compare two values — the result is always a boolean: true or false.

OPERATOR	MEANING	EXAMPLE	RESULT
==	Equal to	5 == 5	true
!=	Not equal to	5 != 3	true
> / <	Greater / less than	5 > 3	true
>= / <=	Greater/less or equal	5 >= 5	true

- Note: use == to compare values, not = (assignment operator).
- Do not use >, <, >=, <= with booleans; comparing null with any value using == is valid.
- String comparison with == checks reference, not content — use .equals() for content comparison.

KEY TAKEAWAY Relational operators return a boolean and are essential for decision-making and building program logic.



Relational Operators in Java

Relational operators are used to compare two values.

They return a boolean result: **true** or **false**.

Operator	Name	Meaning	Example (a = 10, b = 20)	Result
<code>==</code>	Equal to	Checks if two values are equal	<code>a == b</code>	false
<code>!=</code>	Not equal to	Checks if two values are not equal	<code>a != b</code>	true
<code>></code>	Greater than	Checks if left value is greater than right value	<code>a > b</code>	false
<code><</code>	Less than	Checks if left value is less than right value	<code>a < b</code>	true
<code>>=</code>	Greater than or equal to	Checks if left value is greater than or equal to right value	<code>a >= b</code>	false
<code><=</code>	Less than or equal to	Checks if left value is less than or equal to right value	<code>a <= b</code>	true



Key Points

- Relational operators always return a boolean value (**true** or **false**).
- They are commonly used in decision making, loops, and conditional statements.



RELATIONAL OPERATORS — REAL-WORLD EXAMPLE

Employee Registration, using relational operators to gate business rules.

```
if (age >= 18) {           // allow registration
    registerEmployee();
}
if (salary > 50000) {      // apply tax calculation
    calculateTax();
}
if (id1 != id2) {          // avoid duplicate employee IDs
    createNewRecord();
}
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Relational operators are what turn business rules — age limits, salary thresholds, uniqueness checks — into working code.

LOGICAL OPERATORS

Combine two or more boolean expressions — the result is always true or false.

OPERATOR	MEANING	EXAMPLE	RESULT
&&	Logical AND	true && false	false
	Logical OR	true false	true
!	Logical NOT	!true	false
^	Logical XOR	true ^ true	false

TRUTH TABLES

- AND (&&): true only when both operands are true.
- OR (||): true when at least one operand is true.
- NOT (!): flips true to false and false to true.
- XOR (^): true only when the operands differ.

KEY TAKEAWAY Operator precedence: ! (highest) → && → || (lowest). Use parentheses to make intent unambiguous.

LOGICAL OPERATORS

Logical operators in Java are used to combine boolean expressions and return a boolean result (**true/false**).

Operator	Name	Description	Example	Result
&&	Logical AND	Returns true only if both expressions are true .	(A > 5) && (B < 10)	true only if A > 5 and B < 10
	Logical OR	Returns true if at least one of the expressions is true .	(A > 5) (B < 10)	true if A > 5 or B < 10 or both
!	Logical NOT	Reverses the boolean value of the expression.	!(A > 5)	true if A <= 5



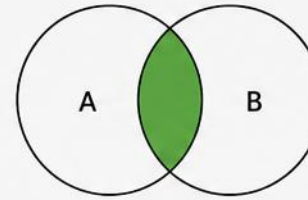
Key Points

- Operands must be boolean (**true/false**) expressions.
- && has higher precedence than ||.
- ! has higher precedence than both && and ||.
- Short-circuit evaluation is applied in && and ||.

VISUAL REPRESENTATION

A && B

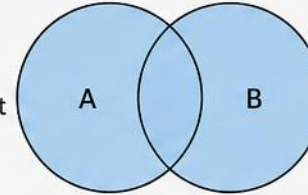
(Logical AND)
True only when both A and B are **true**.



A	B	A && B
T	T	T
T	F	F
F	T	F
F	F	F

A || B

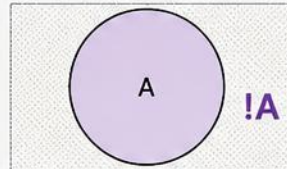
(Logical OR)
True when at least one of A or B is **true**.



A	B	A B
T	T	T
T	F	T
F	T	T
F	F	F

!A

(Logical NOT)
Reverses the value of A.



A	!A
T	F
F	T

PRECEDENCE (High to Low)



SHORT-CIRCUIT EVALUATION & REAL-WORLD USE

Java skips work it doesn't need to do — a performance and safety feature.

AND (&&)

- If the first operand is false, the second is never evaluated.

OR (||)

- If the first operand is true, the second is never evaluated.

```
if (employee != null && employee.getSalary() > 50000) {  
    applyBonus(employee);    // safe: null check short-circuits first  
}
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Logical operators let you build complex conditions from simple boolean expressions — essential for decision-making.

ASSIGNMENT OPERATORS

Shorthand notation to assign and update variable values.

OPERATOR	MEANING	EXAMPLE	EQUIVALENT TO
=	Assign	x = 5	x = 5
+=	Add and assign	x += 3	x = x + 3
-=	Subtract and assign	x -= 3	x = x - 3
*= / /= / %=	Multiply / divide / mod and assign	x *= 2	x = x * 2

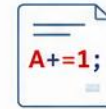
```
int total = 100;
total += 50;    // total is now 150
total -= 20;    // total is now 130
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Assignment operators write clean, concise code — total += 50 says the same thing as total = total + 50 with less noise.



Assignment and Increment Operators

Operators used to assign values and update variables efficiently.



1. ASSIGNMENT OPERATORS

Used to assign a value to a variable.

Operator	Example	Equivalent To	Description
=	a = 10	a = 10	Simple assignment
+=	a += 5	a = a + 5	Add and assign
-=	a -= 5	a = a - 5	Subtract and assign
*=	a *= 5	a = a * 5	Multiply and assign
/=	a /= 5	a = a / 5	Divide and assign
%=	a %= 5	a = a % 5	Modulus and assign
&=	a &= 5	a = a & 5	Bitwise AND and assign
=	a = 5	a = a 5	Bitwise OR and assign
^=	a ^= 5	a = a ^ 5	Bitwise XOR and assign
<<=	a <<= 2	a = a << 2	Left shift and assign
>>=	a >>= 2	a = a >> 2	Right shift and assign
>>>=	a >>>= 2	a = a >>> 2	Unsigned right shift and assign

Example:

```
int a = 10;
a += 5; // a = a + 5 => a = 15
a *= 2; // a = a * 2 => a = 30
a -= 8; // a = a - 8 => a = 22
```

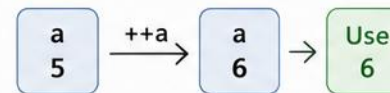


2. INCREMENT AND DECREMENT OPERATORS

Used to increase or decrease the value of a variable by 1.

Operator	Name	Example	Explanation
++a	Pre-increment	<code>int a = 5;</code> <code>int b = ++a;</code>	- a is incremented to 6 - b gets 6
--a	Pre-decrement	<code>int a = 5;</code> <code>int b = --a;</code>	- a is decremented to 4 - b gets 4
Postfix (used after the variable)			
a++	Post-increment	<code>int a = 5;</code> <code>int b = a++;</code>	- b gets 5 (original value) - a is incremented to 6
a--	Post-decrement	<code>int a = 5;</code> <code>int b = a--;</code>	- b gets 5 (original value) - a is decremented to 4

Pre-increment: ++a



Increment first, then use

Post-increment: a++



Use first, then increment



Notes:

- Assignment operators provide a shorthand way to perform operations and assign the result.
- Use prefix (++a / --a) when you need the updated value immediately.
- Use postfix (a++ / a--) when you need the current value first, then update the variable.

INCREMENT & DECREMENT OPERATORS

++ and -- update a variable by 1 — but prefix and postfix behave differently.

```
int a = 5;  
int b = ++a;    // prefix: increment first, then assign → a=6, b=6  
  
int c = 5;  
int d = c++;    // postfix: assign first, then increment → c=6, d=5
```

- Use prefix ++/-- when you need the updated value immediately; use postfix when you need the current value first.
- Operator precedence: ++ -- (higher) → = += -= *= /= %= (lower). Avoid multiple increments in a single expression.

KEY TAKEAWAY Understanding prefix vs postfix behavior is crucial — it's one of the most common sources of off-by-one bugs.

DECISION MAKING WITH IF AND ELSE

Execute different blocks of code based on whether a condition is true or false.

- The condition in if is evaluated first; if true, the if block executes, otherwise the else block executes.
- Only one block (if or else) ever executes; conditions must be boolean expressions.

1. IF STATEMENT

```
if (age >= 18) {  
    System.out.println("Eligible to register");  
}
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Condition must be inside round brackets (); Java is case-sensitive, so if and else must be lowercase.

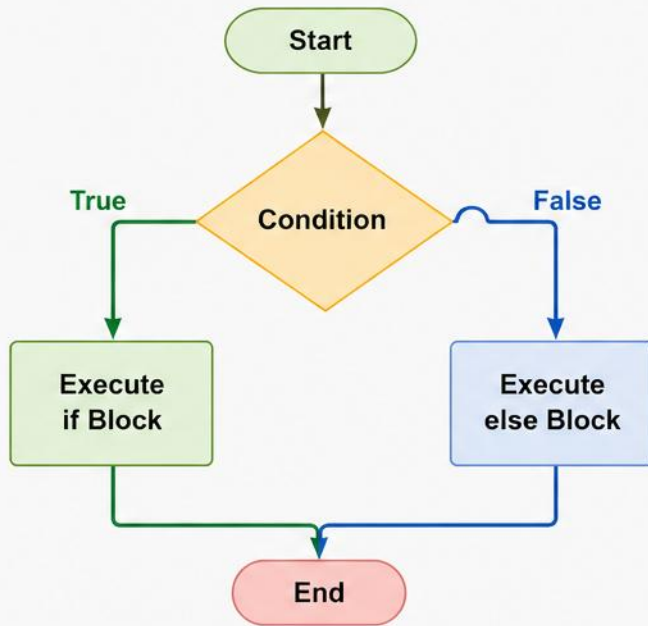
Decision Making with if and else in Java

The **if** statement executes a block of code if a condition is true.

The **else** statement executes a block of code if the condition is false.



Flowchart



Syntax

```
if (condition) {  
    // code to be executed if condition is true  
} else {  
    // code to be executed if condition is false  
}
```

Java Code Example

```
public class IfElseDemo {  
    public static void main(String[] args) {  
        int num = 10;  
        if (num >= 0) {  
            System.out.println("Number is positive or zero");  
        } else {  
            System.out.println("Number is negative");  
        }  
    }  
}
```

How it Works

- **Condition is true:**
The **if** block is executed and the **else** block is skipped.
- **Condition is false:**
The **else** block is executed and the **if** block is skipped.
- **Only one block** (either **if** or **else**) is executed.

IF...ELSE & IF...ELSE IF...ELSE LADDER

Two more shapes of decision-making, for two-way and multi-way branches.

2. IF...ELSE STATEMENT

```
if (condition) {  
    // code if true  
} else {  
    // code if false  
}
```

3. IF...ELSE IF...ELSE LADDER

```
if (marks >= 90) {      grade = "A";  
} else if (marks >= 75) { grade = "B";  
} else {                grade = "C";  
}
```

KEY TAKEAWAY You can nest if inside another if for complex logic — but a ladder is usually clearer once you have 3+ conditions.

IF/ELSE — IMPORTANT NOTES & REAL-WORLD USES

Where these constructs show up in everyday business logic.

- Only one block executes per if/else chain — the first matching condition wins.
- Boolean expressions only — you cannot use an int or String directly as a condition.
- Deeply nested if statements hurt readability; consider a ladder or switch instead.

REAL-WORLD EXAMPLES



Age Verification

Allow/deny based on age.



Discount Calculation

Tiered discount logic.



Grade Evaluation

Score ranges to letter grades.

KEY TAKEAWAY if and else help your program make smart decisions — they are the building blocks of logic in any application.

SWITCH STATEMENTS

Test a variable for equality against a list of values — a cleaner alternative to a long if...else if chain.

- Evaluates an expression once and matches it against case values; executes the matching case block.
- Use break to exit after a match; an optional default block runs if no case matches.
- Works with byte, short, int, char, String, and enum types.

```
switch (day) {  
    case 1: System.out.println("Monday"); break;  
    case 2: System.out.println("Tuesday"); break;  
    default: System.out.println("Other day");  
}
```

KEY TAKEAWAY If break is omitted, execution falls through to the next case — usually a bug, occasionally intentional.

Switch Statements in Java

The **switch** statement allows a variable to be tested for equality against a list of values. It is an alternative to multiple if-else if-else statements.

1. Syntax

```
switch (expression) {  
    case value1:  
        // statements  
        break;  
    case value2:  
        // statements  
        break;  
    ...  
    case valueN:  
        // statements  
        break;  
    default:  
        // statements  
}
```

- **expression** must be of type: byte, short, char, int, String, or enum.
- **case** values must be constant or literal and of the same type as expression.
- **break** prevents fall-through.
- **default** is optional and executes when no case matches.

3. Example

```
int day = 3;  
switch (day) {  
    case 1: System.out.println("Monday"); break;  
    case 2: System.out.println("Tuesday"); break;  
    case 3: System.out.println("Wednesday"); break;  
    case 4: System.out.println("Thursday"); break;  
    case 5: System.out.println("Friday"); break;  
    default: System.out.println("Weekend");  
}
```

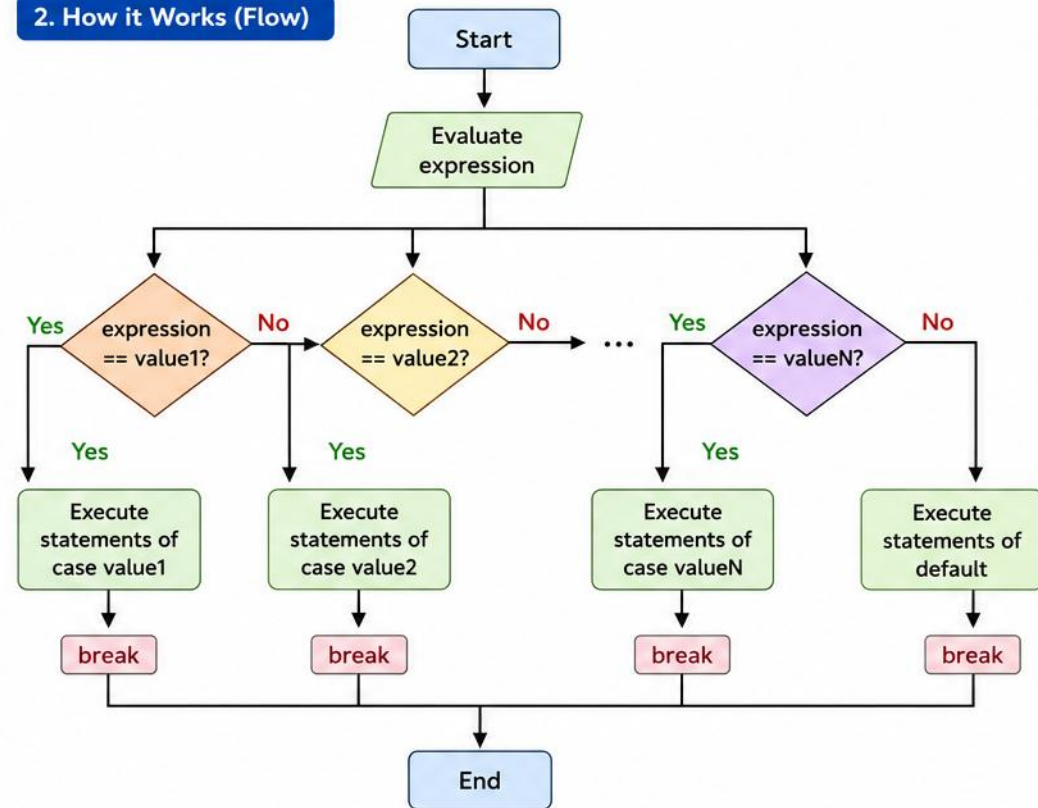
Output

Wednesday

Key Points

- ✓ Improves readability over multiple if-else.
- ✓ Efficient for many discrete choices.
- ✓ Use break to avoid fall-through.
- ✓ Since Java 7, switch supports String.
- ✓ Since Java 14, supports arrow syntax (enhanced switch).

2. How it Works (Flow)



Enhanced Switch (Java 14+)

```
switch (day) {  
    case 1 -> System.out.println("Monday");  
    case 2 -> System.out.println("Tuesday");  
    case 3 -> System.out.println("Wednesday");  
    default -> System.out.println("Weekend");  
}
```

- ✓ No break needed.
- ✓ No fall-through.
- ✓ More concise and readable.

SWITCH — RULES, COMPARISON & USE CASES

When to reach for switch instead of a chain of if...else if.

- Case values must be constant or literal; duplicate case values are not allowed.
- default is optional but recommended; switch expressions (Java 14+) can return a value directly.

SWITCH	IF...ELSE IF LADDER
Best for one variable, many exact values	Best for ranges and complex boolean conditions

COMMON USE CASES

- Day/month names · Grade evaluation · Menu or command selection · Payment method handling · State/status codes.

KEY TAKEAWAY Use switch when comparing one variable against many possible values — it's more readable and less error-prone.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 2: DECISION MAKING

Reinforces: if/else and switch, as just covered.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	DecisionDemo.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac DecisionDemo.java	DecisionDemo.class produced
3	Run	java DecisionDemo	Prompts for a score and a day number
4	Key concept	switch (arrow form)	Matches one value against fixed cases — no break needed
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-02-decision-making.md	Full starter code and steps

```
if (score >= 90) { ... }           // first true branch wins
else if (score >= 80) { ... }      // else-if chain checks top to bottom
switch (day) { case 1 -> ...; }    // arrow form: no fall-through, no break
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 2 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-02-decision-making.md.

LOOPS IN JAVA

Execute a block of code repeatedly as long as a condition is true — automating repetitive tasks.

- A loop continues until its condition becomes false; the three key parts are initialize, test condition, update.
- Use loops when the number of iterations is not known in advance; always avoid infinite loops.

THREE TYPES OF LOOPS



for

- Iteration count is known in advance.



while

- Condition checked before each iteration; may run zero times.



do-while

- Condition checked after; guaranteed to run at least once.

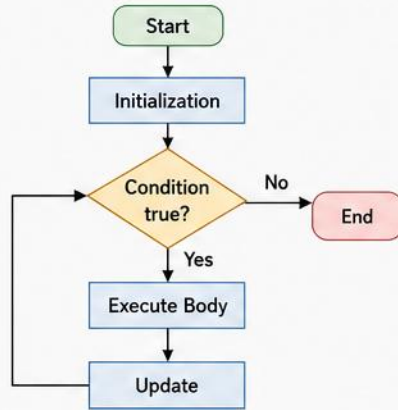
KEY TAKEAWAY Choose for, while, or do-while based on whether you know the iteration count and whether the body must run at least once.

LOOPS IN JAVA

Loops are used to execute a block of code multiple times until a specific condition is met.

1. for LOOP

Used when the number of iterations is known.

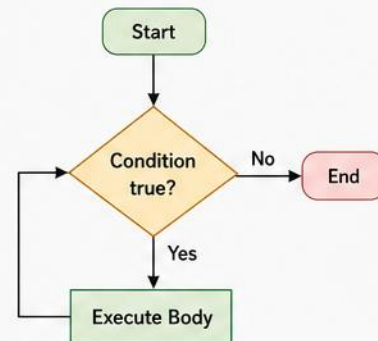


```
for (int i = 1; i <= 5; i++) {  
    System.out.println(i);  
}
```

Use when iterations are count-based (e.g., for traversing arrays, tables).

2. while LOOP

Used when the number of iterations is not known in advance. Condition is checked before execution.

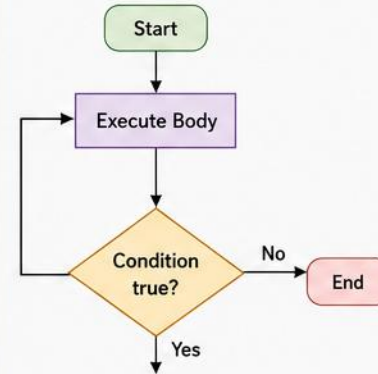


```
int i = 1;  
while (i <= 5) {  
    System.out.println(i);  
    i++;  
}
```

Use when we don't know how many times the loop will run.

3. do-while LOOP

Similar to while, but the condition is checked after execution. Executes at least once.

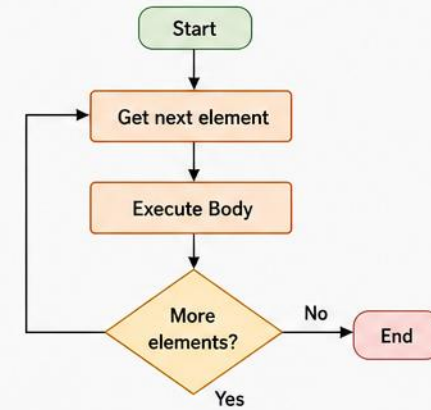


```
int i = 1;  
do {  
    System.out.println(i);  
    i++;  
} while (i <= 5);
```

Use when the loop body should execute at least once.

4. Enhanced for LOOP (for-each loop)

Used to iterate over arrays or collections easily.



```
int[] nums = {10, 20, 30, 40};  
for (int n : nums) {  
    System.out.println(n);  
}
```

Use for clean and easy iteration over arrays and collections.

Key Points



- ✓ Use the right loop based on the requirement.
- ✓ Avoid infinite loops (ensure condition will eventually be false).



- ✓ Ensure loop variables are updated correctly.
- ✓ Prefer enhanced for loop for collections/arrays.



- ✓ Break and continue can be used to control loop flow.
- ✓ Write readable and maintainable loop logic.

Loop Comparison

Loop Type	Condition Check	Executes At Least Once?
for	Before each iteration	No
while	Before each iteration	No
do-while	After each iteration	Yes
Enhanced for	Before each iteration	No

BREAK, CONTINUE & COMMON LOOP TASKS

Two keywords that change loop flow mid-iteration.

```
for (int i = 0; i < 10; i++) {  
    if (i == 5) break;          // exits the loop entirely  
    if (i % 2 == 0) continue;  // skips to the next iteration  
    System.out.println(i);  
}
```

- Common loop tasks: calculate sum of first N numbers, find factorial, search an element in an array, process all elements in a collection, generate patterns.

KEY TAKEAWAY break exits the loop; continue skips only the current iteration — knowing the difference avoids logic bugs.

FOR LOOP

Used when the number of iterations is known in advance.



```
for (int i = 1; i <= 5; i++) {  
    System.out.println("Count: " + i);  
}  
// Output: Count: 1  Count: 2  Count: 3  Count: 4  Count: 5
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Initialization runs once, the condition is checked before every iteration, and update runs after each pass.

FOR LOOP IN JAVA

The for loop is used to repeat a block of code a specific number of times.

Syntax

```
for (initialization; condition; update) {  
    // body of the loop  
}
```

How it Works

- 1 **Initialization:** Executed once at the beginning.
- 2 **Condition:** Checked before each iteration. If true, the loop body executes.
- 3 **Update:** Executed after each iteration.
- 4 When condition becomes false, the loop terminates.

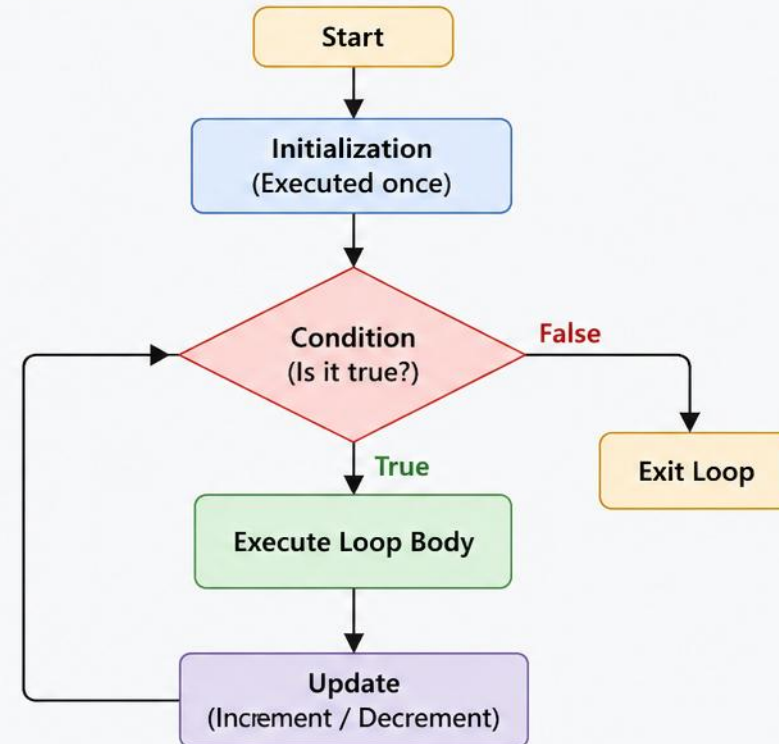
Example

```
for (int i = 1; i <= 5; i++) {  
    System.out.println(i);  
}
```

Output

1
2
3
4
5

Flow of Execution



Key Points



- **for** loop is ideal when the number of iterations is known.
- It combines initialization, condition checking, and update in a single line.
- Widely used in arrays, collections, and repetitive tasks.

```
for (int i = 0; i < n; i++)  
    ↑           ↓           ↓  
Initialization Condition Update
```

NESTED FOR LOOP & BEST PRACTICES

A loop inside a loop — common for grids, tables, and patterns.

```
for (int i = 1; i <= 3; i++) {  
    for (int j = 1; j <= 3; j++) {  
        System.out.print(i * j + " ");  
    }  
    System.out.println();  
}
```

- Use meaningful variable names; ensure the condition will eventually become false.
- Update the loop control variable correctly; use for loops when the iteration count is known.

KEY TAKEAWAY The for loop is ideal when you know how many times the loop should run — compact, readable, and efficient.

WHILE LOOP

Repeats a block of code as long as the specified condition is true — checked before each iteration.

```
int i = 1;
while (i <= 5) {
    System.out.println(i);
    i++;
}
```

- If the condition is false at the start, the loop body may not execute at all — zero or more iterations.
- Make sure the loop condition will eventually become false, and update the control variable inside the loop.

KEY TAKEAWAY The while loop checks first, then executes — ideal when the number of iterations is not known in advance.

WHILE LOOP IN JAVA

The **while** loop repeatedly executes a block of code as long as the given condition is true. When the condition becomes false, the loop stops

Syntax:

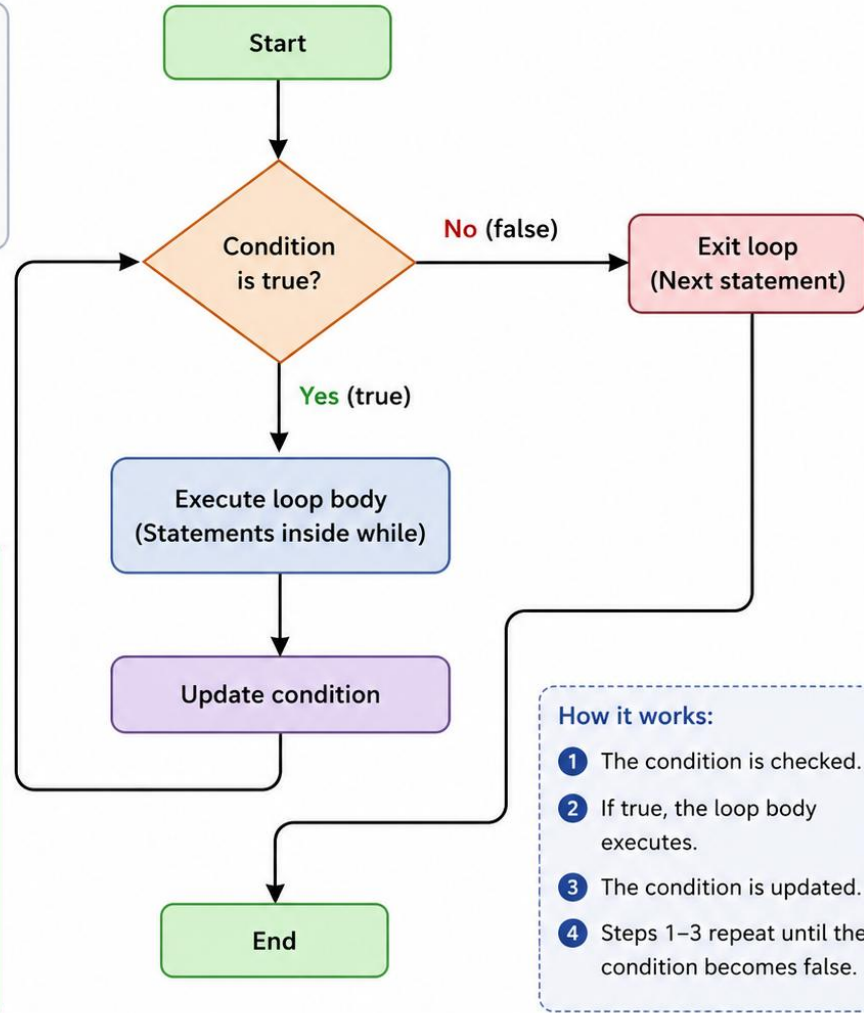
```
while (condition) {  
    // body of loop  
    // statements  
}
```

Example:

```
int i = 1;  
while (i <= 5) {  
    System.out.println(i);  
    i++;  
}
```

Output:

```
1  
2  
3  
4  
5
```



WHILE LOOP — WORKED EXAMPLE & USE CASES

Summing the first N numbers, the classic while-loop exercise.

```
int n = 5, sum = 0, i = 1;
while (i <= n) {
    sum += i;
    i++;
}
// sum = 15 (1+2+3+4+5)
```

- Common use cases: reading user input until valid, processing records until end of file, retrying operations until success, game loops, menu-driven programs.

KEY TAKEAWAY Use break to exit a while loop early when needed, but keep exit conditions explicit wherever possible.

DO-WHILE LOOP

Like a while loop, but the condition is checked after the body runs — guaranteed at least one execution.

```
int i = 1;
do {
    System.out.println(i);
    i++;
} while (i <= 5);
```

KEY CHARACTERISTICS

- The loop body executes at least once; the condition is evaluated after the loop body.
- Use when the first execution is mandatory; avoid infinite loops by updating the control variable.

KEY TAKEAWAY Use do-while when the code must run at least once, then repeat based on a condition.

do-while Loop in Java

The do-while loop is an exit-controlled loop. The block of code is executed at least once, then the condition is checked. If the condition is true, the loop repeats.

Syntax

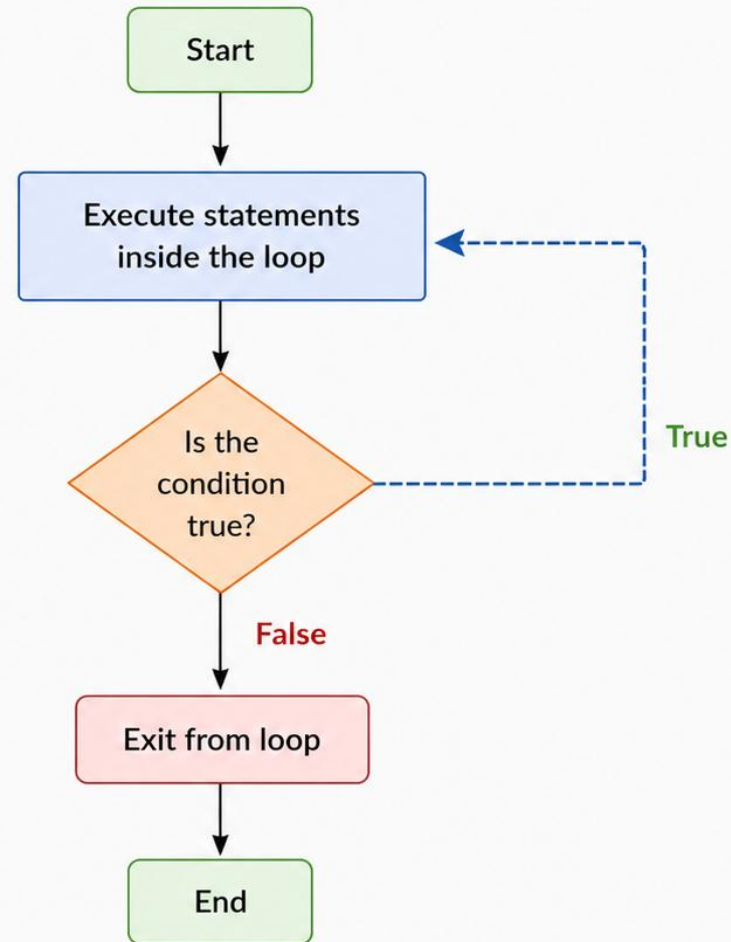
```
do {  
    // statements  
} while (condition);
```

Example

```
int i = 1;  
do {  
    System.out.println(i);  
    i++;  
} while (i <= 5);
```

Output

```
1  
2  
3  
4  
5
```



Key Point

In do-while loop, the statements are executed first, then the condition is checked. Therefore, the loop body executes at least once.

DO-WHILE — MENU-DRIVEN EXAMPLE

The menu is displayed at least once, even if the user exits immediately.

```
int choice;
do {
    System.out.println("1) Add  2) View  3) Exit");
    choice = scanner.nextInt();
    // handle choice...
} while (choice != 3);
```

- Best practices: initialize the loop control variable, ensure the condition will eventually become false, update it correctly.

KEY TAKEAWAY The do-while loop is perfect when you need the code to run at least once, then repeat based on a condition.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 3: LOOPS

Reinforces: for, while, and do-while, as just covered.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	LoopsDemo.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac LoopsDemo.java	LoopsDemo.class produced
3	Run	java LoopsDemo	Prints a table, a countdown, then a repeating menu
4	Key concept	do-while runs its body once first	Unlike while, which checks the condition before any pass
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-03-loops.md	Full starter code and steps

```
for (int i = 1; i <= 5; i++) { ... }           // known number of repetitions
while (count > 0) { count--; }                 // condition checked before each pass
do { ... } while (choice.equals("menu"));      // body always runs at least once
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 3 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-03-loops.md.

INTRODUCTION TO METHODS

A block of code that performs a specific task — methods help write modular, reusable, organized code.

KEY BENEFITS



Reusability

Write once, use many times.



Modularity

Break big problems into small tasks.



Readability

Code is easier to understand.



Maintainability

Easier to update and test.



Avoids Repetition

Reduces duplicate code.

METHOD ANATOMY

```
public    static    int    add(int a, int b) { return a + b; }  
access    keyword  return    name  (parameters)    method body  
modifier           type
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Methods help organize code, improve reusability, and make programs easier to understand and maintain.

METHODS IN JAVA

A method in Java is a block of code that performs a specific task. It helps in code reusability, modularity and easier maintenance.



SYNTAX

```
access_modifier return_type method_name(parameter_list) {  
    // method body  
    return value; // (if non-void)  
}
```

TYPES OF METHODS

1. Built-in Methods



Provided by Java libraries.
Example:
`System.out.println()`

2. User-defined Methods



Created by the developer as per requirement.
Example:
`add(), calculate(), display()`

KEY FEATURES



Reusability
Write once, use many times.



Modularity
Breaks program into small, manageable parts.



Maintainability
Easier to test, debug and update code.



Abstraction
Hides internal details and shows only functionality.

EXAMPLE

```
public class Calculator {  
    // Method that adds two numbers and returns the result  
    public int add(int a, int b) {  
        int sum = a + b;  
        return sum;  
    }  
  
    // Main method - entry point  
    public static void main(String[] args) {  
        Calculator calc = new Calculator();  
        int result = calc.add(10, 20);  
        System.out.println("Sum: " + result);  
    }  
}
```

Method Declaration

Defines the method name, return type and parameters.

Parameters

Input values passed to the method.

Method Body

Contains the logic to perform the task.

Return Statement

Returns a value back to the caller.

Method Call

Invokes the method using its name.

METHOD SIGNATURE

The combination of method name and parameter list is called the method signature.

`method_name` + `(parameter_list)` = Signature

Note: Return type is not part of the method signature.

NOTES

- Method name should follow Java naming conventions.
- Parameters are optional.
- A method can return a value or be **void**.

METHODS — EXAMPLE, TYPES & BEST PRACTICES

A method that returns a value, and the two broad categories of methods.

```
public static int add(int a, int b) {  
    return a + b;  
}  
int sum = add(3, 4);    // 7
```



Return a Value

- Uses return to send a result back to the caller.



void (No Return)

- Performs an action, sends nothing back.

- Use meaningful method names; keep methods small and focused on one task.
- Use parameters and return values effectively; avoid code duplication.

KEY TAKEAWAY How methods work: the caller passes arguments, the method executes its body, and control returns to the caller.

METHOD PARAMETERS AND RETURN TYPES

Pass data in, get results out — parameters and return values make methods flexible.

- Parameters are variables listed in the method definition — placeholders for values passed when the method is called.
- Return type specifies what the method sends back via return; void means the method returns nothing.
- Arguments are the actual values passed to the method when it is called.

TYPES OF PARAMETERS & RETURN



Primitive Parameters

- int, double, char, boolean, ... passed by value.



Reference Parameters

- Objects, arrays — the reference is passed by value.

KEY TAKEAWAY Parameters bring data into a method, and return types send results back — together they make methods reusable.

METHOD PARAMETERS AND RETURN TYPES IN JAVA

Methods can accept input through parameters and return a value to the caller.

1. PARAMETERS (Input to Method)

- Parameters are variables listed in the method **definition**.
- They receive values (**arguments**) when the method is called.
- A method can have **zero, one, or multiple** parameters.

Method Definition

```
int add(int a, int b) {  
    return a + b;  
}
```

Parameters (a, b)
receive values

Method Call

```
int sum = add(10, 20);
```

Arguments (10, 20)
passed to parameters

Types of Parameters



No Parameters
void display()



One Parameter
int square(int n)



Multiple Parameters
int add(int a, int b)

2. RETURN TYPES (Output from Method)

- A method can return a value to the caller using a **return** statement.
- The **return type** specifies the type of value returned.
- If no value is returned, use **void**.

Method with Return Type

```
int multiply(int x, int y) {  
    int result = x * y;  
    return result;  
}
```

Usage

```
int product = multiply(5, 6);
```

Returned value
stored in variable

Return Type Examples

int

```
int getAge() {  
    return 25;  
}
```

double

```
double getPrice() {  
    return 19.99;  
}
```

boolean

```
boolean isValid() {  
    return true;  
}
```

String

```
String getName() {  
    return "Java";  
}
```

void (no return value)

```
void printMsg() {  
    System.out.println("Hi");  
    return; // optional  
}
```

Key Points

- ✓ Parameters provide input.
- ✓ Arguments are actual values passed.
- ✓ Return type defines the type of value returned.
- ✓ Use **void** when no value needs to be returned.
- ✓ The return statement ends method execution.

PARAMETERS & RETURN — WORKED EXAMPLES

Three shapes: returning a value, returning nothing, and returning an object.

```
// Example 1 – parameters + return
static int add(int a, int b) {
    return a + b;
}
```

```
// Example 2 – void return
static void greet(String name) {
    System.out.println("Hi " + name);
}
```

```
// Example 3 – returning an object
static Employee createEmployee(String name, double salary) {
    return new Employee(name, salary);
}
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Prefer returning a value over printing inside the method — it keeps methods reusable and testable.

PARAMETER PASSING — VALUE VS REFERENCE

Java is always pass-by-value — but for objects, the value being passed is a reference.

```
// Primitive — no effect on the original
static void change(int n) { n = n + 10; }
int x = 5; change(x);    // x is still 5

// Reference (object) — affects the original
static void change(int[] arr) { arr[0] = 99; }
int[] a = {1,2,3}; change(a);    // a[0] is now 99
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Reassigning a parameter inside a method never affects the caller's variable — but mutating the object it points to does.

METHOD OVERLOADING BASICS

Same method name, different signatures — resolved at compile time (static polymorphism).



Works with Different Types

Same operation, different data.



Easier to Read

One intuitive name to remember.



Reusable & Maintainable

Related behavior grouped together.

METHOD SIGNATURE = NAME + PARAMETER LIST

```
static int add(int a, int b) { return a + b; }  
static double add(double a, double b) { return a + b; }  
static int add(int a, int b, int c) { return a + b + c; }  
// Overloaded: differ by parameter type or count.
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Methods must differ in parameter type, number, or order — return type alone cannot be used for overloading.

METHOD OVERLOADING IN JAVA

Method Overloading is a feature in Java that allows a class to have multiple methods with the **same name** but **different parameters** (number, type or order of parameters).

HOW IT WORKS

- Methods must have the same name.
- Parameter list must be different.
- Return type can be same or different (but cannot be the only difference).

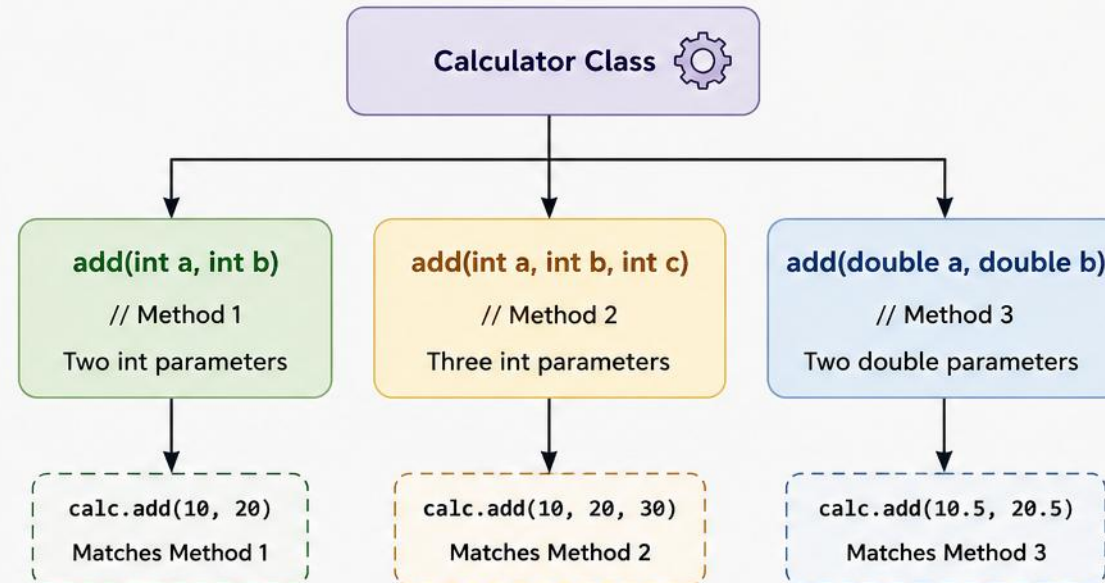
EXAMPLE

```
1 class Calculator {  
2     // Method 1: two int parameters  
3     int add(int a, int b) {  
4         return a + b;  
5     }  
6  
7     // Method 2: three int parameters  
8     int add(int a, int b, int c) {  
9         return a + b + c;  
10    }  
11  
12    // Method 3: two double parameters  
13    double add(double a, double b) {  
14        return a + b;  
15    }  
16 }  
17 }
```

USAGE

```
Calculator calc = new Calculator();  
calc.add(10, 20);      // calls Method 1  
calc.add(10, 20, 30);  // calls Method 2  
calc.add(10.5, 20.5);  // calls Method 3
```

VISUAL REPRESENTATION



KEY POINTS

- ✓ Method overloading improves code readability.
- ✓ It is achieved at **compile-time** (static polymorphism).
- ✓ The compiler decides which method to call based on the arguments provided.
- ✓ Return type alone cannot be used for overloading.

NOT ALLOWED

```
int add(int a, int b) { ... }  
double add(int a, int b) { ... }
```

Same name and same parameters
(with only return type different)
→ **Compilation Error**



In short: **Same name, different parameters** → **Method Overloading**.

HOW THE COMPILER CHOOSES AN OVERLOAD

Five-step resolution order, from exact match to varargs.

- 1 Exact match — parameter types match precisely.
- 2 Widening primitive conversion — e.g. `int` → `long`.
- 3 Widening reference conversion — e.g. `subtype` → `supertype`.
- 4 Autoboxing / unboxing — e.g. `int` → `Integer`.
- 5 Varargs — matched only as a last resort.

- Best practices: overload when methods perform the same task with different data, keep parameter lists simple, avoid too many variations.

KEY TAKEAWAY Method overloading gives flexibility by allowing multiple methods with the same name, resolved at compile time.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 4: METHODS

Reinforces: parameters, return values, and overloading.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	MethodsDemo.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac MethodsDemo.java	MethodsDemo.class produced
3	Run	java MethodsDemo	Prints square(4) and square(2.5)
4	Key concept	Overloading	Same method name, different parameter types
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-04-methods.md	Full starter code and steps

```
public static int square(int n) {           // int version
    return n * n; }                         // overload comes next
public static double square(double n) {...} // overload: compiler picks by argument type
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 4 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-04-methods.md.

PACKAGES IN JAVA

A namespace that organizes related classes and interfaces, avoiding name conflicts and controlling access.

KEY BENEFITS



Organizes Code

Related classes and interfaces.



Avoids Conflicts

No more naming collisions.



Readable

Improves maintainability.



Access Protection

Enables package-private members.

CREATING A PACKAGE

```
package com.techsolutions.util;  // must be the first statement

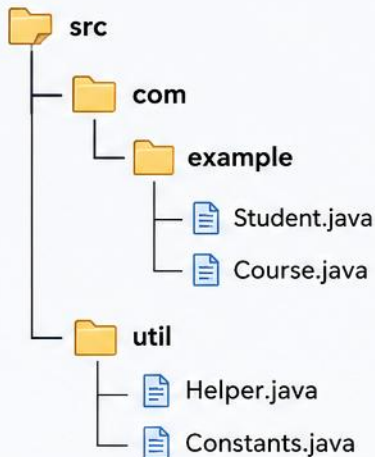
public class MathUtil {
    public static int square(int n) { return n * n; }
}
```

KEY TAKEAWAY The package statement must be the first statement in a .java file — every class belongs to a package.

PACKAGES IN JAVA

Packages are used to group related classes and interfaces.
They help in organization, avoid naming conflicts, and control access.

PACKAGE STRUCTURE



WHY USE PACKAGES?

- ✓ Avoids name collisions (same class names).
- ✓ Organizes related classes.
- ✓ Provides access protection.
- ✓ Easier maintenance and reusability.

PACKAGE DECLARATION

```
// File: Student.java
package com.example;
public class Student {
    int id;
    String name;
}
```

HOW TO USE

```
import com.example.Student;
public class Main {
    public static void main(String[] args) {
        Student s = new Student();
    }
}
```

ACCESS LEVELS

Modifier	Within Same Package	Outside Package (Subclass)	Outside Package (Non-Subclass)
public	✓	✓	✓
protected	✓	✓	✗
default (no modifier)	✓	✗	✗
private	✓	✗	✗

TYPES OF PACKAGES

1. Built-in Packages (predefined)

- java.lang – core classes (String, Math, System)
- java.util – utilities (List, Set, Date)
- java.io – input/output classes
- java.time – date and time API

2. User-defined Packages

Created by developers to organize application-specific classes.

KEY POINTS



First statement in a Java file must be the package declaration.



Folder structure must match the package name.
(com.example → com/example)



Use import to access classes from another package.



Packages help in encapsulation and access control.

PACKAGE TYPES & BUILT-IN PACKAGES

Two kinds of packages, and the ones you'll use every day.



Built-in Packages

- Provided by the JDK: java.lang, java.util, java.io.



User-Defined Packages

- Created by developers to organize their own code.

PACKAGE	PURPOSE
java.lang	Core classes — String, Math, Object (auto-imported)
java.util	Collections, Scanner, Date, and utility classes
java.io	Input/output classes — files, streams

KEY TAKEAWAY Best practices: use meaningful, all-lowercase package names, organize by feature or layer, and avoid the default package.

IMPORT STATEMENTS

Tell the compiler to make a class — or a whole package — available in your program.

KEY BENEFITS

- Reduces the need for fully qualified names, improves readability, and avoids repeating package names.

WITHOUT IMPORT vs WITH IMPORT

```
// without import
java.util.Scanner sc =
    new java.util.Scanner(System.in);
```

```
// with import
import java.util.Scanner;
Scanner sc = new Scanner(System.in);
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Import statements must come after the package statement and before any class definition; classes in java.lang need no import.

Import Statements in Java

Import statements allow you to use classes and interfaces from other packages without writing their fully qualified names.

1. Why Import?



- Java classes are organized in packages.
- Import statements bring classes into your current file.
- Improves readability and reduces the need to use fully qualified names.

2. Types of Import

Single Type Import

```
import packageName.ClassName;
```

Imports a specific class or interface from a package.

On-Demand (Wildcard) Import

```
import packageName.*;
```

Imports all classes and interfaces from a package.

3. How It Works



Package: java.util

ArrayList

HashMap

Date

...



Using Import

```
1 import java.util.ArrayList;
2 import java.util.*;
3
4 public class Example {
5     public static void main(String[] args) {
6         ArrayList<String> list = new ArrayList<>();
7         list.add("Java");
8     }
9 }
```

ArrayList is available without using java.util.ArrayList

All classes in java.util are available (due to *)



4. Key Points

- ✓ import statements must be placed at the top of the file, before the class declaration.
- ✓ The java.lang package is imported automatically by default.
- ✓ If two packages have classes with the same name, use the fully qualified name to avoid ambiguity.

Example: Without Import

```
1 public class Example {
2     public static void main(String[] args) {
3         java.util.ArrayList<String> list =
4             new java.util.ArrayList<>();
5     }
6 }
```

Without import, we must use the fully qualified class name.

VALID IMPORTS & BEST PRACTICES

Wildcard imports work, but specific imports keep your namespace predictable.

VALID	USE WITH CARE
<code>import java.util.Scanner;</code>	<code>import java.util.*;</code> (wildcard — can cause name conflicts)
<code>import java.util.List;</code>	<code>import static java.lang.Math.*;</code> (static wildcard)

- Import is not transitive — importing a class does not give you its dependencies automatically.
- Commonly used packages: java.util (Scanner, ArrayList), java.io (files/streams), java.time (dates).
- Best practices: import only what you need, prefer specific imports over wildcard, keep imports organized.

KEY TAKEAWAY Import statements help you use classes from other packages easily, improving readability and reducing complexity.

ORGANIZING JAVA PROJECTS

A well-organized project is easy to build, maintain, and scale.

WHY ORGANIZE PROJECTS?



Readable & Maintainable

Easier to navigate and change.



Manages Complexity

Helps large applications scale.



Enables Teamwork

Supports code reuse across teams.



Tool-Friendly

IDEs and build systems work better.

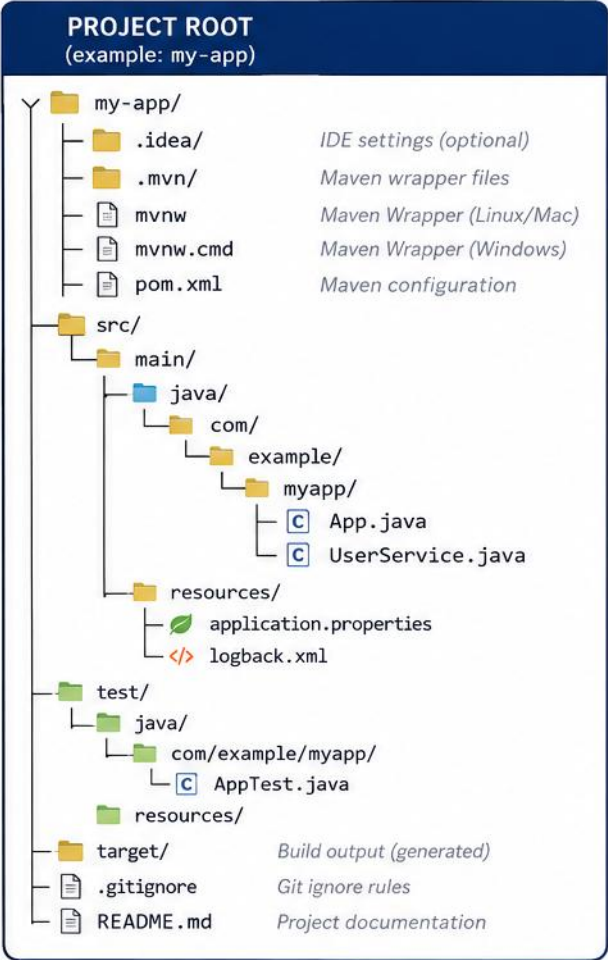
STANDARD PROJECT STRUCTURE

```
src/  
  com/techsolutions/app/  
    Main.java  
    model/Employee.java  
    service/EmployeeService.java
```

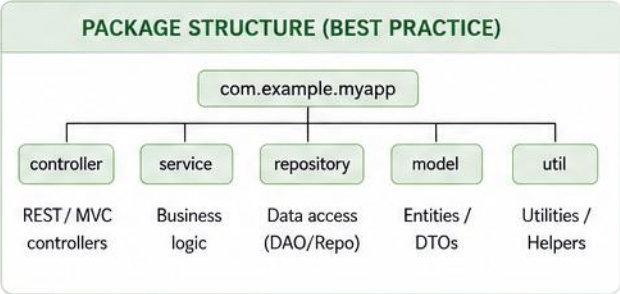
KEY TAKEAWAY If the package declaration and directory path don't match, compilation will fail.

ORGANIZING JAVA PROJECTS

A common, scalable project structure (Maven/Gradle style)



PATH	PURPOSE
src/main/java	Java source code for the application.
src/main/resources	Configuration files, properties, XML, templates, static resources.
src/test/java	Unit and integration test source code.
src/test/resources	Test configuration and test resources.
target/	Compiled classes, packaged JAR/WAR. Generated at build time.
pom.xml	Maven Project Object Model – manages dependencies, plugins, build.
.mvn/, mvnw*	Maven Wrapper – ensures consistent Maven version for the project.
.gitignore	Files and folders to ignore in version control.
README.md	Project overview, setup instructions, and notes.



BENEFITS
✓ Clear separation of concerns
✓ Easy to navigate and maintain
✓ Scalable for small to large applications
✓ Works well with Maven and Gradle
✓ Industry-standard convention



TIPS

- Keep your package names in reverse domain format: com.example.myapp
- Put environment-specific configs in resources (e.g., application-dev.properties)
- Write tests for your code and keep them under src/test/java
- Keep dependencies up to date and avoid unused ones

LEGEND

Folder File Java Class

PACKAGE NAMING & BEST PRACTICES

Reverse-domain naming keeps your packages globally unique.

```
com.companyname.project.module  
com.bankapp.loanmanagement    // all lowercase, reverse domain notation
```

- Follow standard naming (all lowercase, reverse domain); keep packages small and focused.
- Avoid deep nesting (more than 4 levels); never use the default package.
- Organize by feature or by layer (model, service, controller); use IDE templates or build tools to scaffold structure.

KEY TAKEAWAY A good project structure is the foundation of a successful Java application — organize, follow conventions, stay consistent.

CONSOLE INPUT WITH SCANNER

The Scanner class (java.util) makes it easy to read input from the keyboard.



Reads Multiple Types

int, double, String, etc.



Easy & User-Friendly

Simple, familiar API.



Handles Whitespace

Automatically, in most cases.



Improves Interactivity

Real console programs.

```
import java.util.Scanner;  
Scanner sc = new Scanner(System.in);
```

METHOD	READS	EXAMPLE
<code>nextInt()</code>	int	<code>int age = sc.nextInt();</code>
<code>nextDouble()</code>	double	<code>double d = sc.nextDouble();</code>

KEY TAKEAWAY Always import java.util.Scanner, create one Scanner for System.in, and close it when done.

Console Input with Scanner (Java)

Scanner is a class in `java.util` package that is used to take input from the console (keyboard).

How it Works

- 1 Create a `Scanner` object and pass `System.in` to read input from the console.
- 2 Use `nextXxx()` methods to read different data types.
- 3 Scanner reads input token by token (separated by whitespace by default).
- 4 Close the Scanner object after use.

Example Code

```
import java.util.Scanner;

public class ScannerInputDemo {
    public static void main(String[] args) {
        Scanner sc = new Scanner(System.in);

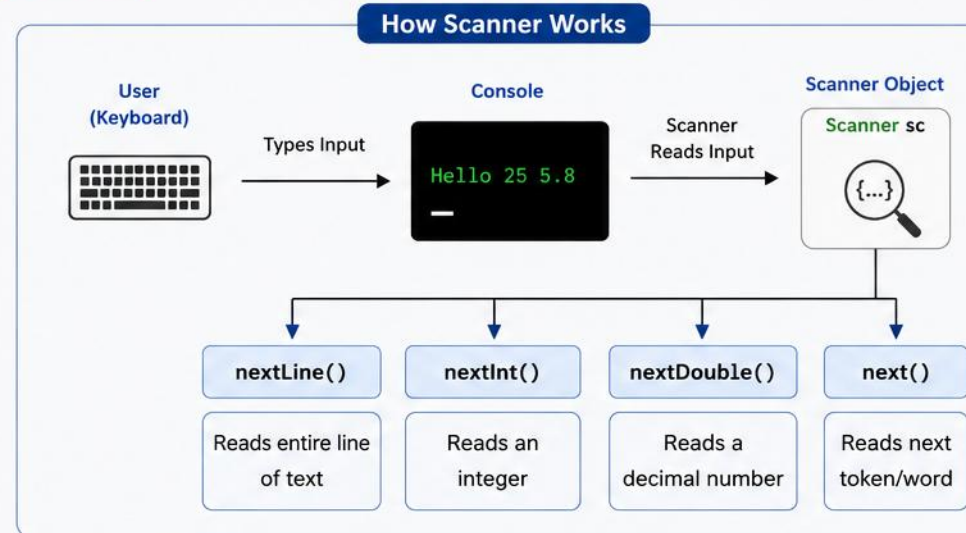
        // Reading different types of input
        System.out.print("Enter your name: ");
        String name = sc.nextLine();

        System.out.print("Enter your age: ");
        int age = sc.nextInt();

        System.out.print("Enter your height: ");
        double height = sc.nextDouble();

        // Displaying input
        System.out.println("\nName    : " + name);
        System.out.println("Age     : " + age);
        System.out.println("Height  : " + height);

        sc.close(); // Always close the scanner
    }
}
```



Sample Run

Console Input (User types)

```
Enter your name: John Doe
Enter your age: 25
Enter your height: 5.8
```

Console Output (Program prints)

```
Name    : John Doe
Age     : 25
Height  : 5.8
```

Common Scanner Methods

Method	Description
<code>nextLine()</code>	Reads an entire line of text (including spaces)
<code>next()</code>	Reads next token/word (stops at whitespace)
<code>nextInt()</code>	Reads an integer
<code>nextDouble()</code>	Reads a double value
<code>nextBoolean()</code>	Reads a boolean value (true/false)
<code>nextLong()</code>	Reads a long value



NEXT() VS NEXTLINE() & COMMON MISTAKES

The single most common Scanner bug in beginner Java code.



- Reads only up to the first whitespace.
- Input: "John Doe" → Output: "John"



- Reads the entire line, including spaces.
- Input: "John Doe" → Output: "John Doe"

```
int age = sc.nextInt();  
sc.nextLine();    // consume the leftover newline  
String name = sc.nextLine();
```

KEY TAKEAWAY Mixing `nextInt()` and `nextLine()` without consuming the leftover newline is the #1 Scanner mistake — always chain a `nextLine()` after.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 5: PERSONAL DETAILS

Reinforces: next() vs nextLine() and the leftover-newline trap you just saw.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	PersonalDetails.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac PersonalDetails.java	PersonalDetails.class produced
3	Run	java PersonalDetails	Prompts for name, age, city
4	Key concept	nextInt() leaves \n in the buffer	Call scanner.nextLine() once to consume it
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-05-personal-details.md	Full starter code and steps

```
int age = scanner.nextInt();    // reads the int, leaves '\n' in the buffer
scanner.nextLine();            // consume that leftover newline
String city = scanner.nextLine(); // now reads city correctly, not ""
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 5 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-05-personal-details.md.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 6: PRODUCT INFORMATION

Reinforces: reading mixed types safely with `nextLine()` + `parse`.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	ProductInfo.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	<code>javac ProductInfo.java</code>	ProductInfo.class produced
3	Run	<code>java ProductInfo</code>	Prompts for name, quantity, price
4	Key concept	<code>Integer.parseInt(scanner.nextLine())</code>	Avoids the <code>nextInt()</code> leftover-newline issue entirely
5	Reference	<code>exercises/exercise-06-product-info.md</code>	Full starter code and steps

```
String name = scanner.nextLine();           // text may include spaces
int qty = Integer.parseInt(scanner.nextLine()); // read a line, then convert
double price = Double.parseDouble(scanner.nextLine()); // same pattern for decimals
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 6 before continuing — see `exercises/exercise-06-product-info.md`.

CONSOLE OUTPUT AND FORMATTING

System.out displays output on the console — three methods, three purposes.



print()

- Prints without a trailing new line.



println()

- Prints followed by a new line.



printf()

- Prints using format specifiers for precise layout.

SPECIFIER	MEANING	EXAMPLE
%d	Integer	printf("%d", 25) → 25
%.2f	Decimal, 2 places	printf("%.2f", 9.5) → 9.50
%s	String	printf("%s", "Anita") → Anita

KEY TAKEAWAY printf() format specifiers let you control exactly how numbers and text are laid out on the console.

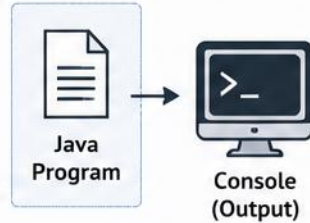
Console Output and Formatting in Java

Java provides the `System.out` class to print output to the console.



1. Basic Output

- `System.out.print()` – prints without newline
- `System.out.println()` – prints with newline
- `System.out.printf()` – formatted output
- `System.out.format()` – formatted output (using Format specifiers)



2. printf() Formatting

```
int age = 25;
double pi = 3.14159;
String name = "Alice";
```

```
System.out.printf("Name: %s\n", name);
System.out.printf("Age: %d\n", age);
System.out.printf("PI: %.2f\n", pi);
```

Output

```
Name: Alice
Age: 25
PI: 3.14
```

Common Format Specifiers

Specifier	Meaning	Specifier	Meaning
%d	Integer (decimal)	%c	Character
%f	Floating point	%b	Boolean
%.2f	Floating point with 2 decimals	%x	Hexadecimal
%s	String	%%	Percent sign (%)

3. Formatting Examples

Width and Alignment

```
System.out.printf("|% 10d|\n", 123); // right aligned
System.out.printf("|%-10d|\n", 123); // left aligned
System.out.printf("|% 10s|\n", "Java"); // right aligned
System.out.printf("|%-10s|\n", "Java"); // left aligned
```

Output

```
|      123|
|123      |
|      Java|
|Java     |
```

10 is the minimum field width

Precision

```
System.out.printf("%.1f\n", 3.14159);
System.out.printf("%.3f\n", 3.14159);
System.out.printf("%.5f\n", 3.14159);
```

Output

```
3.1
3.142
3.14159
```

Controls the number of digits after decimal

Escape Sequences

```
System.out.println("Hello\nWorld");
System.out.println("Java\tProgramming");
System.out.println("Quote: \"Java\"");
System.out.println("Backslash: \\ ");
```

Output

```
Hello
World
Java    Programming
Quote: "Java"
Backslash: \ 
```

Special characters for better formatting

4. Best Practices

- ✓ Use `println()` for complete lines and `print()` for inline output.
- ✓ Use `printf()` for readable and well-formatted output.
- ✓ Choose appropriate format specifiers for data types.
- ✓ Use `\n` for new lines and `\t` for tab spacing.



Note

`printf()` and `format()` return a `PrintStream`, so you can chain calls.

```
System.out.printf("Hello").printf(" World!");
```

Example: Student Details

```
String name = "Rahul";
int rollNo = 101;
double percentage = 87.65;
```

```
System.out.printf("%-10s %5d %6.2f\n",
    name, rollNo, percentage);
```

Output

```
Rahul      101    87.65%
```



ESCAPE SEQUENCES & COMMON PITFALLS

Special characters, and the mistakes that produce garbled output.

ESCAPE	MEANING	EXAMPLE
<code>\n</code>	New line	"Line1\nLine2"
<code>\t</code>	Tab	"Name:\tAnita"
<code>\"</code>	Double quote	"She said \"Hi\""

- Common pitfalls: forgetting `println()` (output runs together), wrong format specifier for the data type.
- Mismatched specifiers and arguments (too many/too few `%s`), and not closing quotes.

KEY TAKEAWAY Using `println()`, `printf()`, and escape sequences together lets you build clean, well-formatted, user-friendly output.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 7: AREA OF CIRCLE

Reinforces: printf decimal formatting you just saw.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	CircleArea.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac CircleArea.java	CircleArea.class produced
3	Run	java CircleArea	Prompts for a radius
4	Key concept	Math.PI * r * r	Built-in constant for π , no import needed
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-07-circle-area.md	Full starter code and steps

```
double area = Math.PI * r * r;           //  $\pi \times r^2$ 
System.out.printf("Area: %.2f\n", area); // %.2f = two digits after the decimal
// try radius = 2.5                     // expect Area: 19.63
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 7 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-07-circle-area.md.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 8: BILL SUMMARY (CHALLENGE)

Reinforces: combining input, arithmetic, and money-style printf.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	BillSummary.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac BillSummary.java	BillSummary.class produced
3	Run	java BillSummary	Prompts for product, quantity, unit price
4	Key concept	%% inside printf	Prints a literal % (for "Discount (10%%)")
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-08-bill-summary.md	Full starter code and steps

```
double total = qty * price;           // before discount
double discount = total * 0.10;       // 10% off
System.out.printf("Discount (10%%): %.2f\n", discount); // %% escapes the percent sign
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 8 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-08-bill-summary.md.

TRY IT YOURSELF — EXERCISE 9: PERSONAL PROFILE (BONUS)

Reinforces: printf width specifiers for aligned columns.

STEP	WHAT TO DO	COMMAND	RESULT
1	Create the file	PersonalProfile.java	New Java class ready to edit
2	Compile	javac PersonalProfile.java	PersonalProfile.class produced
3	Run	java PersonalProfile	Prompts for name, age, city, hobby
4	Key concept	%-12s left-aligns in a 12-char field	Same idea Lab 2's student list table uses
5	Reference	exercises/exercise-09-profile-bonus.md	Full starter code and steps

```
System.out.printf("%-12s | %-20s\n", "Field", "Value"); // header row
System.out.printf("%-12s | %-20s\n", "Name", name);    // left-aligned, 12-char field
System.out.println("-----|-----");              // simple divider line
```

TRY IT NOW Complete Exercise 9 before continuing — see exercises/exercise-09-profile-bonus.md.

JAVA NAMING CONVENTIONS

Good names make your code readable, understandable, and maintainable.

IDENTIFIER	CONVENTION	EXAMPLE
Classes / Interfaces	PascalCase	Employee, PaymentService
Methods / Variables	camelCase	calculateSalary, totalAmount
Constants	UPPER_SNAKE_CASE	MAX_EMPLOYEES, TAX_RATE
Packages	all lowercase, reverse domain	com.bankapp.loanmanagement

- Use meaningful and descriptive names; use a consistent style for similar elements.
- Do not use Java reserved keywords as identifiers.

KEY TAKEAWAY Following naming conventions leads to clean, consistent, professional code that is easy to read and maintain.

Java Naming Conventions

Following standard naming conventions makes code readable, consistent, and easy to maintain.

ELEMENT	CONVENTION	EXAMPLE	GENERAL RULES
 Class	• Use PascalCase • Noun or noun phrase	CustomerAccount <pre>public class CustomerAccount { // class body }</pre>	Aa Use meaningful names
 Interface	• Use PascalCase • Adjective or noun	Runnable <pre>public interface Runnable { // interface body }</pre>	 Names should be readable and descriptive
 Method	• Use camelCase • Verb or verb phrase	calculateTotalAmount() <pre>public double calculateTotalAmount() { // method body }</pre>	 Avoid using single-letter names (except loop variables like i, j, k)
 Variable (local)	• Use camelCase • Noun or noun phrase	totalAmount <pre>double totalAmount = 0.0;</pre>	123 Do not start names with digit
 Constant (static final)	• Use UPPER_SNAKE_CASE • Noun or noun phrase	MAX_RETRY_COUNT <pre>public static final int MAX_RETRY_COUNT = 3;</pre>	 Do not use special characters (except _ and \$)
 Package	• Use lowercase • Reverse domain name notation	com.example.project <pre>// package com.example.project;</pre>	BEST PRACTICES ✓ Be consistent within the project ✓ Follow standard conventions strictly ✓ Use IDE templates or code style settings ✓ Good names improve code readability and maintainability



Good Naming = Self-documenting Code

Follow conventions today, thank yourself tomorrow.



NAMING — GENERAL RULES, DO'S & DON'TS

Seven rules, and the mistakes to avoid.

- Names can contain letters, digits, \$, and _ — but cannot start with a digit; names are case-sensitive.
- Do not use reserved keywords; names should be meaningful, descriptive, and pronounceable.
- Avoid abbreviations and unclear names; be consistent within the project.



Do's

- Meaningful names, camelCase for methods/vars, PascalCase for classes, UPPER_SNAKE_CASE for constants.



Don'ts

- Single-letter names (except generics), leading numbers, reserved keywords, inconsistency.

KEY TAKEAWAY Package naming uses reverse domain style: com.example.project.module — e.g. com.bankapp.loanmanagement.

CODE STYLE BEST PRACTICES

Good code style improves readability, maintainability, and teamwork.



Write for People

Code is read far more than written.



Be Consistent

Same style throughout the project.



Keep it Simple

Avoid needless cleverness.



Meaningful Names

Say what the thing is.



Indentation

- 4 spaces per level; never tabs.



Braces Style

- Use braces for all control statements, even single-line.



Line Length

- Keep each line ≤ 120 characters.



Whitespace

- Around operators, after commas, one blank line between methods.

KEY TAKEAWAY Consistent code style is not just about looks — it's about clear communication.

CODE STYLE BEST PRACTICES IN JAVA

Good code style improves readability, maintainability and teamwork.



GOOD STYLE • BETTER CODE • BETTER SOFTWARE

1 FOLLOW NAMING CONVENTIONS

- Use meaningful and descriptive names.
- Use camelCase for variables and methods.
- Use PascalCase for classes.
- Use UPPER_SNAKE_CASE for constants.

```
// Good
class Customer {
    private String firstName;
    private final int MAX_RETRY = 3;
    public void calculateTotal() {
        // ...
    }
}
```

2 USE PROPER INDENTATION

- Use 4 spaces per indent
- Do not use tabs.
- Keep code blocks consistent.

```
// Good
if (x > 0) {
    for (int i = 0; i < n; i++) {
        doWork(i);
    }
} else {
    handleError();
}
```

3 KEEP LINES SHORT AND READABLE

- Limit line length to 100–120 characters.
- Avoid long parameter lists or expressions.
- Break long lines logically.

```
// Good
int total = price * quantity
           + tax - discount
           + shippingCharge;
```

4 USE SPACES CONSISTENTLY

- Use spaces around operators, keywords and after commas.
- Do not use extra spaces unnecessarily.

```
// Good
if (a == b) {
    int sum = a + b;
    list.add(item);
}

// Avoid
if(a==b){
    int sum=a+b;
    list.add( item );
}
```

5 WRITE MEANINGFUL COMMENTS

- Explain why, not what.
- Keep comments up to date.
- Do not over-comment obvious code.

```
// Calculate total after
// tax and discount
double total = price * (1 -
discount) + tax;
```

6 ORGANIZE IMPORTS

- Use specific imports.
- Avoid wildcard imports (avoid importing *)
- Group imports:
 1. java.*
 2. javax.*
 3. third-party
 4. project packages

```
// Good
import java.util.List;
import java.util.ArrayList;

import javax.sql.DataSource;

import org.slf4j.Logger;
import org.slf4j.LoggerFactory;

import com.myapp.model.User;
import com.myapp.service.UserService;
```

7 KEEP CODE SIMPLE AND CONSISTENT

- Prefer simplicity over clever code.
- Be consistent within the project.
- Follow team or industry standards (e.g., Google Java Style Guide).



Readable Code



Happy Team



Fewer Bugs



Easy Maintenance

CODE STYLE — METHOD DESIGN, COMMENTS & CHECKLIST

The habits that separate professional code from a first draft.

- Method Design: keep methods small and focused; the method name should describe what it does; return early to reduce nesting.
- Comments: explain WHY, not WHAT; keep comments up-to-date; use Javadoc for public APIs.
- Organization: Fields → Constructors → Methods → Inner classes.

QUICK CHECKLIST

- Indent with 4 spaces, no tabs; use braces for all control statements; meaningful names for all identifiers.
- Keep lines within 120 characters; comments explain why, not what; keep methods small and focused.

KEY TAKEAWAY Follow best practices today for better code, better teams, and better software.



PRE-LAB EXERCISES OVERVIEW

Nine short console programs to complete before Lab 2, from core syntax practice to a bonus profile challenge.

- Exercise Goal: practice variables, Scanner input, arithmetic, and printf() output in small, focused programs before combining them in Lab 2.

EXERCISES

- 1 Calculations — read two numbers; show sum, difference, product, and quotient.
- 2 Decision Making — grade a score with if/else if/else; name a day with switch.
- 3 Loops — multiplication table with for; countdown with while; menu with do-while.
- 4 Methods — a square method overloaded for int and double parameters.
- 5 Personal Details — read name, age, and city; display a greeting.
- 6 Product Information — read product name, quantity, and price.
- 7 Area of Circle — read a radius; calculate area using Math.PI.
- 8 Bill Summary (challenge) — compute total, 10% discount, and final amount.
- 9 Personal Profile (bonus) — aligned printf table for name, age, city, and hobby.

KEY TAKEAWAY These exercises build every construct Lab 2 combines: variables, Scanner input, decisions, loops, methods, arithmetic, and printf() formatting.

LAB 2 EVALUATION & DELIVERABLES

How Lab 2 — the Student Management console app — is scored, and what to submit.

EVALUATION CRITERIA	WEIGHT
Project Structure & Packages	15%
Student Model & Menu Loop	30%
Core Operations (Add/Display/Search/Average)	30%
Validation & Formatted Output	15%
Code Quality & Evidence	10%

- Deliverables: source under `java-bootcamp/examples/Lab2-JavaSyntax/src/com/academy/student/`, screenshots (menu, add success, display table, average, exit), a short reflection note, and working compile/run commands.

KEY TAKEAWAY Program flow: menu loop → validate input → add / search / average → display a formatted table.

LAB 2 TASKS AND DELIVERABLES

Java Syntax and I/O — build a menu-driven Student Management console app.

KEY FOCUS AREAS



Package Structure

com.academy.student folder layout.



Student Model

Fields, constructor, getters/setters.



Menu Loop

while (true) + switch, choices 1-5.



Add & Display

Validate input; printf table.



Search & Average

Find by ID; compute average marks.



Validation

Reject bad input, duplicate IDs, out-of-range marks.

- Deliverables: source under java-bootcamp/examples/Lab2-JavaSyntax/src/com/academy/student/ (Student.java, StudentManager.java, Main.java), screenshots of the menu/add/display/average/exit flow, and a short reflection note.

KEY TAKEAWAY One console app, every construct: packages, Scanner, arrays, methods, loops, and validation working together.

MODULE 2 SUMMARY

You learned how to write basic Java programs that take input, calculate, and display formatted output.

- Java program structure and syntax; variables, data types, and operators.
- Taking input using the Scanner class; performing calculations; displaying formatted output.

CONCEPT	MEANING
Class & main()	Every program starts with a class; main() is the entry point
Data Types	int, double, String, boolean, char, ...
Scanner Methods	nextLine(), nextInt(), nextDouble()
Output Methods	print(), println(), printf()

KEY TAKEAWAY Real-world use: collecting user information, business calculations, reports and bills, interactive console programs.

MODULE 2 CHECKLIST & WHAT'S NEXT

Self-check before moving on to control statements and beyond.

- I can write a simple Java program with a class and main().
- I can declare variables and use different data types.
- I can take user input using Scanner.
- I can perform calculations.
- I can display formatted output using printf().
- I follow naming conventions and write clean code.

What's Next: Control Statements · Loops · Arrays and Strings · Bigger programs and projects.

KEY TAKEAWAY Every box checked here is a construct you'll use in every Java program you write from now on.

MODULE 2 KNOWLEDGE CHECK — MULTIPLE CHOICE (1–5)

Choose the best answer. Correct answers are marked ✓.

1. What is the correct form of the Java main() method?

A) void main(String[] args) **B) public static void main(String[] args) ✓** C) public void main() D) static main(String args)

2. Which of these is a valid Java variable name?

A) 2total **B) total_amount ✓** C) class D) total-amount

3. Which type stores decimal values such as 45.75?

A) int **B) double ✓** C) char D) boolean

4. Which statement correctly reads an integer with Scanner?

A) sc.nextInt() ✓ B) sc.readInt() C) sc.getInt() D) sc.int()

5. What is the output of int p = 7 / 2;?

A) 3.5 **B) 3 ✓** C) 4 D) 3.0

KEY TAKEAWAY Five more multiple-choice questions continue on the next slide.

MODULE 2 KNOWLEDGE CHECK — MULTIPLE CHOICE (6–10)

Choose the best answer. Correct answers are marked ✓.

6. Which method displays text without moving to a new line?

- A) `System.out.println()` **B) `System.out.print()` ✓** C) `System.out.printf()` D) `System.out.write()`

7. Which format specifier shows a value with two decimal places?

- A) `%d` **B) `%.2f` ✓** C) `%s` D) `%2d`

8. What is the result of $5 + 3 * 2$ (operator precedence)?

- A) 16 **B) 11 ✓** C) 13 D) 10

9. Given `int x = 4, y = 2`, what is `x + y * x`?

- A) 24 **B) 12 ✓** C) 10 D) 8

10. Which type is correct for reading a full line of text, including spaces?

- A) `sc.next()` **B) `sc.nextLine()` ✓** C) `sc.nextInt()` D) `sc.readLine()`

KEY TAKEAWAY That's the full ten-question knowledge check — next, the module's key takeaways before you head into the lab.

MODULE 2 KEY TAKEAWAYS

The essentials you need to write simple Java programs confidently.

- | | | | |
|---|--|---|--|
| 1 | Program Structure — every Java program starts with a class; <code>main()</code> is the entry point. | 1 | Formatted Output — <code>%d</code> for integers, <code>%.2f</code> for two decimal places, <code>%s</code> for strings. |
| 2 | Variables & Data Types — <code>int</code> , <code>double</code> , <code>String</code> , <code>boolean</code> , <code>char</code> store the values your program works with. | 2 | Type Conversion — widening happens automatically; narrowing requires an explicit cast, e.g. <code>(int) d</code> . |
| 3 | Arithmetic Operations — <code>+</code> , <code>-</code> , <code>*</code> , <code>/</code> , <code>%</code> follow standard precedence; use parentheses to control it. | 3 | Naming Conventions — <code>PascalCase</code> for classes, <code>camelCase</code> for variables/methods, <code>UPPER_SNAKE_CASE</code> for constants. |
| 4 | Input with Scanner — <code>nextLine()</code> for <code>String</code> , <code>nextInt()</code> for <code>int</code> , <code>nextDouble()</code> for <code>double</code> . | 4 | Code Style — meaningful names, consistent indentation, and comments that explain why, not what. |
| 5 | Output with <code>System.out</code> — <code>print()</code> (no newline), <code>println()</code> (newline), <code>printf()</code> (formatted). | 5 | Practice is Key — write small programs, test with different inputs, and build confidence step by step. |

KEY TAKEAWAY These fundamentals — syntax, data types, input, output, and formatting — are the building blocks of every Java application.

Well done

You can now write, compile, and run Java programs using core syntax and constructs with confidence.

Object-oriented programming is next in your toolkit.